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THE ATLANTIC SLAVE TRADE IN NORTHERN SENEGAMBIA: AN EXAMINATION OF AN ARISTOCRATIC ROLE IN THE RISE AND FALL OF WOLOF SOCIETIES

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> Large numbers of its young men and women, most in the prime of their life, were carried off, never to return. Because the initial enslavement was largely carried out by Africans and orchestrated by men in leadership positions, the slave trade undermined the very foundation of traditional political institutions and gave rise to warlords and new states that often concentrated their efforts on hunting people...Merchants' preoccupation with trade in humans stymied the development of traditional industries.
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> —Johannes Postma, *The Atlantic Slave Trade* (2003)

Introduction: The Other Half of the Atlantic Slave Trade

The collective mind attributes the devastation of West Africa following the Atlantic Slave Trade to the European and American merchants. They recall the story of a white man breaking into the utopian environment and stealing people and resources for his own benefit. Indeed, the greed of the Western imperial powers demanded the sacrifice of many West African lives, further

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facilitating the collapse of local communities and states. However, although this narrative is adept in explaining the general plight of Africa, it fails to account for the full background, process, and consequences of the Atlantic Slave Trade.

To more completely understand the impact of European influence on Africa and provide a "balanced" explanation, we must begin with a discussion of commerce in general. Trade, by definition, implies a match in supply and demand; on an international level, it matches the coinciding interests of states where both parties acquire what they lack. Hence, the Atlantic Slave Trade could not have occurred without the willingness of both sides. Who then was the willing African party? Clearly, it was not the average West African, who suffered greatly at the hands of his enslavers. After being captured in slave raids, enslaved men and women were forced to march long trails to the coast and were shipped as cargo on dangerous journeys to captivity.

Rather, the African aristocracy stood to benefit from the trade. Even before European intervention, some African societies had developed entire political structures, each with its own hierarchical network. Among these operative structures were West African aristocracies which had begun the process of enslavement and slave-trading. These rulers later willfully provided their own subjects to Europeans in exchange for luxury goods and advanced arms, with which they intended to strengthen their regional power.

We now focus on the West African region of Northern Senegambia—the initial point of contact between European traders and the African ruling class—to expand upon the aristocracy's role in West Africa during and after the Atlantic Slave Trade. Known today as the land of Senegal and Gambia, the region is "in the Sahelo-Sudanese area...bounded on the North by the Senegal River and on the South, by the Gambia River."[1] Senegambia had been home to the indigenous Wolof people, who from the 15th to 18th centuries, were ruled by an empire, multiple warrior states, and Islamic theocracies in succession. Yet, despite these shifts in regional power, one variable held constant: the export of human labor to foreign trading partners.

Although Senegambia steadily decreased its slave exportation from the 1720s onward, it is important to consider Senegambia in an account of the Atlantic trade due to its early and longstanding exposure to European influence.[2] Primary records from early Portuguese voyagers indicate that Europeans began trading goods for slaves in Senegambia via the Cape Verde ports in the mid-15th century, two to three hundred years before the peak of the Atlantic Slave Trade. From that time, Senegambian states remained a constant presence in international markets and supplied slaves to European traders for the next four centuries. Visual reminders of this trade remain at Senegambian ports such as the Goree Island and Saint Louis, through which approximately 750,000 slaves were processed during their forced exodus.[3] It was only the early 19th-century European and American halting of slave importations that made Senegambia end its involvement in the slave trade.

However, the damage was already done. Similar to what is later evident in other West African regions, Northern Senegambia witnessed political instability, social antagonism, and economic depression not long after its initial 1445 engagement with the Atlantic Slave Trade. These factors led to political turnover and religious uprisings, rendering the region unstable and prone to foreign invasion. But this consideration only leaves us with more questions: if the aristocracy was supposed to be benefitting from the slave trade, why and how did it end up losing its power? What was the extent of Europe's intervention in this hostile takeover? How did an average Wolof peasant respond to these violent and sudden changes?

In order to answer these questions, we will first examine the pre-existing hierarchal institutions and slave culture that initially facilitated and ultimately solidified Northern Senegambia's longstanding foothold in the Atlantic Slave Trade. Next, we will look at why the ruling class perpetuated a violent slave culture to discover what methods were employed by the Wolof aristocracy to engage in and benefit from the slave trade. Finally, we will illustrate how the intensification of the Atlantic trade altered the political,

economic, and social landscapes of Senegambia throughout the 16th and 17th centuries. These analyses demonstrate how the Senegambian aristocracy's greed led to the region's over-reliance on European traders and fostered a violent series of religious and social uprisings. Overall, the deteriorating socio-political situations of Senegambia signal how the same factors employed by the aristocracy to extend their power cultivated the downfall of the very states that they sought to build up.

Western Motivations for the Atlantic Slave Trade

The Portuguese were the first of many Europeans to land in Senegambia. Their 14th and 15th century advances in navigation, cartography, and caravel technology encouraged Portugal to sponsor a series of gold, spice, and slave-inspired voyages along the West African Coast.[4] The Portuguese had clear motivations for slave acquisition; access to a stable slave population was crucial to their domestic and global expansion. In the 14th century, the Black Death ravaged Portuguese cities, causing a fatal drop in available labor and then in economic growth. To recover from this population deficit, Portugal sought to purchase slaves from the Arab Saharan and West African markets. In addition, the European demand for sugar steadily increased throughout the 15th century and incentivized the Portugese to spread their plantations to the Canary Islands, Madeira, and Cape Verde.[5] However, since laboring at the sugar mills was an arduous process, Portuguese workers who had a choice avoided the task at all costs.[6] Thus, in order to fill the job vacancy in these fields, Portugal relied heavily on forced labor by enslaving African natives from islands and coasts.

Not long after the Portuguese began enslaving Africans, the positive effects of this increased labor spread throughout the nation. A 1472 petition from the Parliament of Évora to the Portuguese monarch explicitly describes this situation: "Master, [the slaves] constitute an important population in your Kingdoms, and they are the cause of new lands being opened and woods being cleared and marshes being opened and of other benefits."[7] Already in 1472, slaves had made significant contributions to the

Portuguese expansion effort, and this impact solidified the importance of the slave trade in Portuguese societies.

With this context in mind, one might assume that Portugal's growing desire for slaves coincided well with the Wolof aristocrats' demand for European arms and goods. Indeed, this statement aptly describes the materialistic motives behind the Atlantic Slave Trade. However, if other regions of Africa had larger populations, why did these European traders initially target Senegambia, a region of drastically smaller geographical size and significantly fewer people?

The Prevalence of Hierarchy and Slave Culture in Northern Senegambia

The Wolof Societies within Northern Senegambia surfaced as the ultimate trading partners for the Portuguese because of their distinct slave culture. Indeed, when the Portuguese merchants first arrived, institutions of slavery and slave trade were familiar to the Wolof people. This social construct evolved from the region's historical background.

Prior to the 12th century, Northern Senegambia consisted of kinship-based societies, but the Mali Empire's occupation transformed those cultures into hierarchical states.[8] Namely, a group of former patriarchal heads called *lamans* emerged as chiefs of different territorial units and exercised their authority over the peasants.[9] This group of rulers regulated the domestic land distribution by administering rights to territorial settlements and receiving land rents in return.[10] Since then, although the central power of the region varied, Wolof societies remained non-egalitarian.[11] This quality distinguished the Wolof people from Southern Senegambian groups (such as the Sereer) who, in stark contrast, retained egalitarian structures, "[refused] to become subjected to any lord [and argued that] their wives and children may not be taken from them and sold as slaves."[12]

After the decline of the Mali Empire in 1360, the Wolof population continued hierarchical orderings established by the

lamans to form a monarchical system.[13] This new empire, named the Jolof Empire,[14] consolidated previously scattered political entities under a rigid caste system that promoted inequality and servitude. By the 15th century, Wolof societies had developed distinct status groups such as the nobility (*garmi*), freemen (*jaambuur*), artisans or griots (*nyenyo*), and slaves (*jaam*) with heavily concentrated power in the ruling class.[15]

Cada Mosto, a 15th century Venetian explorer to Senegambia, best depicts the evident disparity between the peasant and ruling classes. He writes, "[the *Budomel* (lords) are] more feared and respected by their subjects than any of the lords in Italy… [one in particular] had nine wives…[and was] always attended by a retinue of at least two hundred."[16] As Cada Mosto describes, the aristocratic affluence starkly contrasted with the powerlessness of the peasants and displayed the unequal societal states of the ruling and working class. Furthermore, this observation suggests how the Wolof people followed a hierarchy stricter than that of Italy, a group of societies then filled with feudalistic values.

In such a hierarchal society, a person's birth often dictated his military and economic power and thus limited his influence in society. For instance, the minimal prerequisites for obtaining royal and aristocratic status demonstrated how social status and political power reinforced one another for the benefit of the ruling class. While the aristocracy had "hereditary eligibility" for kingship, peasants lacked such power and were completely blocked from aspiring to it.[17] In particular, the Jolof throne was only passed to those who were of the patrilineage of Njajaan Njaay (the founder of the Jolof Empire).[18] The chosen rulers controlled aspects of peasant life by regulating territorial and economic structures in local communities, and the wealth and authority obtained from such a role allowed rulers to enjoy opulent lives. The peasants, on the other hand, primarily played a tributary role by supplying agricultural surpluses to their lords.[19] Ultimately, by classifying its people as either "superior" or "inferior," the Wolof society ensured that recipients of those tags would experience the same quality of life.

We now turn our attention to what slavery looked like in Senegambia before European intervention. Similar to the West's definition of a slave, a *jaam* (slave in Wolof societies) denoted a person in servitude owned by and sold among freemen. Cada Mosto, though a European himself, provides a unique impression of Wolof master-slave relations prior to the beginning of the Atlantic Slave Trade.

> When the vassal has related his story, the lord gives him an answer in two words, with an arrogant aspect. Such is their affected pride and grandeur, and such the submission which is shewn him, which, in my opinion, proceeds from fear, as their lords for every fault they commit, take away their wives and children, and cause them to be sold as slaves.[20]

Consistent with Cada Mosto's account, relegation to an "inferior" status was viewed with fear and humiliation, which leaders often manipulated to reinforce loyalty and authority over the public. However, despite similar views surrounding slave culture, slavery in Senegambia was different from slavery in Europe and America.

Generally, slaves inherited their status or were enslaved as a punishment for law violation, economic debt, or war reparations.[21] The Wolof ruling class used this to their advantage by relying on slave labor in local households and aristocratic courts. Although slaves sometimes assisted with agricultural production, this was not their primary function due to the region's "low population density" and "stagnated agriculture technology."[22] Instead, most slaves focused on household chores and worked to further their lords' political mission. Eventually after many years of servitude, some slaves actually bonded with their masters, receiving better treatment than their status implied: "[the slaves'] relations with their masters appear very close, they eat almost always from the same calabas and sit on the same mat."[23] In some cases, slaves even integrated into the master's family due to their lack of familial ties.[24,25] Seizing upon this opportunity, the aristocrat instilled an identity in and a connection with their slaves to utilize them as loyal servants for the extension of military and political missions.[26] Consequently, during times of sedition and rebellion, these slaves were considered among the few reliable agents for the ruling class

and often acquired power through their association with the aristocracy. This aspect will be important in a later discussion of the aristocracy's demise, but for now we continue our consideration of slave culture in Wolof societies.

The usage of slaves did not end at Senegambia's borders. Even before the Atlantic trade, Wolof aristocrats exploited slaves as valuable exports that, in exchange, provided them with a continual supply of salt, luxuries, and cavalry unavailable in the domestic market. Namely, Wolof aristocrats engaged with Arab Azanhaji traders in the Saharan Slave Trade. This trade allowed aristocrats to expand their militaries as demonstrated in the *Buurba* (Emperor) Jolof's great military of 100,000 soldiers and cavalry in 1508.[27] The presence of this trade is mentioned in detail in Portuguese accounts.

> [The king] likewise increases his wealth by means of robbery, and by reducing his own subjects, and those of neighboring provinces to slavery, employing a part of these slaves to cultivate the lands which are assigned to him, and selling the rest to the Arabs and Azanhaji traders, who bring horses and other things for sale; as likewise to the Christians, since they have established a trade in these parts.[28]

Due to their scarcity, the imported goods soon became symbols of wealth and power. In particular, horses were in high demand for their efficiency in travelling through Northern Senegambia's open landscape.[29] Faster travel also enabled new options for warfare, which established horses as a valuable tool for military prowess.[30] Hence, as a means to obtain large amounts of cavalry and by extension, increased power, Senegambian aristocrats began to enslave more of their people and sell them to Arab Saharan traders.

Because one horse was worth anywhere from six to fifteen slaves, the aristocracy required more people outside of the *jaam* (slave class) to meet the exorbitant levels of Saharan demand.[31] To fulfill this need, the aristocrats created strict laws that punished petty crimes with enslavement. In other cases, rulers increased the number of slaves through wars against neighboring states and raids against their own subjects. This situation soon engendered a recurrent cycle of violence: the raids were only needed to obtain more slaves; the slaves were only needed to be sold for more horses; the horses were only needed to conduct more slave raids. Consistent with this phenomenon, approximately one thousand slaves were annually exported to the Saharan states.[32]

In short, the Wolof ruling class had accepted hierarchal inequality, and more specifically slavery, as a central tenet of their culture prior to any Western intervention. The ubiquity of slave culture soon provided the logical foundation and motivation for aristocrats to sell their subjects to outsiders. It was this entrenched slave system that facilitated the region's early acceptance and propagation of a new maritime slave trade.

Advent of the Atlantic Slave Trade

The relationship between Portugal and the Wolof people originated in 1445 when the Portuguese established a port in Arguin (located north of Senegambia in present-day Mauritania) for the purpose of "penetrat[ing] into the Sudan along the Senegal River" to secure a consistent gold supply.[33] However, the two groups had already been aware of each other's existence for years due to their mutual trading links with the North African Muslims and Ibero-Moroccan Jews.[34] The Portuguese knew of a slave trading empire before first landing on its coast, and the Wolof people "knew what a Christian [of European descent] was and would travel just to see one."[35]

At first, Portugal seemed to focus its trading efforts on gold and spices, but it soon became clear that Portugal was also in the market for human labor. From 1441 to 1444, before the opening of the Arguin port, Portuguese voyagers kidnapped and enslaved those living along the Mauritanian coast; after Arguin's opening, the voyagers continued their piracy south to Senegambia.[36] However, as the Portuguese travelled further into the region, they encountered organized states that defended themselves against piracy attacks.[37] Within these states were the Wolof people of the Jolof Empire, the first Black locals that the Portuguese encountered: "we continued our course along the coast to the river Senegal, which divides the desert and the tawny Azanhaji from the fruit-

ful lands of the Negroes. The first kingdom of the Negroes…its inhabitants are called *Gilofi* or Jalofs."[38]

As in their engagement with Arab Saharan merchants, the Wolof aristocracy provided an ideal slave-trade environment for the Portuguese. Upon their encounter, the Portuguese discovered that Wolof societies were different from neighboring states (such as the Sereer of Southern Senegambia) in that they had already systematized slavery as a means to strengthen aristocratic power. Additionally, the Wolof population was unique for their Islamic beliefs. This belief made the Wolof people prime targets for Portuguese attempts at slave acquisition, as the Wolof were compatible with existing Portuguese practices of "enslaving Muslims from Granada and North Africa."[39] Thus, Portugal recognized Wolof slaves as invaluable commodities that solved its demand for labor and initiated a trading alliance. Their exchange became known as the first instance of the Atlantic Slave Trade in West Africa.

Throughout the first phases of the Atlantic trade, local aristocrats applied the same logical and commercial mechanisms used in the Saharan Trade: the perpetuation of a violent and oppressive slave culture. Since these aristocrats had enjoyed privileged lifestyles for a long time, they had solidified beliefs on the distinction between "superior and inferior people." The aristocrats, with the rationale that only they were noble and civilized, justified and continued the enslavement and selling of those who were inferior. Moreover, during the slave trade, the aristocrats simply continued the system of capturing their own subjects through wars and raids to maintain trade. This system intensified the violence already present from Senegambia's engagement in the Saharan trade and endangered the daily lives of the common men.

Dominant Effects of the Atlantic Slave Trade: The Emergence of Cayor Province

At first glance, the Atlantic Slave Trade seemed similar to the Saharan, but as this new trade progressed it led to unique changes in Northern Senegambia's political landscape. Specifically, while the Saharan trade reinforced the Jolof's authority over its

vassal states, the Atlantic trade disrupted the *status quo* by giving rise to the provincial state of Cayor. This change was the first of many effects brought by the Atlantic trade.

Prior to examining the slave trade's impact on Cayor, we briefly examine the political structure of the Jolof Empire before the second half of the 15th century. As previously mentioned, the Jolof Empire was a consolidation of distinct political entities that existed as independent territorial units. Legends attribute their unification to Njajaan Njaay, who "emerged from the waters of the Senegal River to assure the distribution of fish among fighting children."[40] The narrative illustrates the role that Njaay played in merging the different provinces (Waalo, Cayor, Bawol, and the people of Sereer), each of whom fostered a separate ruling class that pursued its own political strength. After the empire's establishment, most of the political authority was centralized in the Jolof, with the vassal states paying tribute to the *Buurba Jolof*, or Emperor. In return, the *Buurba* provided military protection alongside the fulfillment of political and religious duties.[41]

However, since the empire was a consolidation of separated ruling classes, it exhibited several structural weaknesses. Inherent was an imbalance of power between the 'central' and 'subordinate' states; if a vassal power grew strong enough, it could easily grow independent from the central authority and overthrow the entire kingdom. Cada Mosto describes this situation in his account: "the King has no settled revenue; but the lords of the country court his favour, by making him yearly presents of horses… horses, furniture, cows, and goats, pulse, millet, and other things." [42] Hence, as shown in the Emperor's heavy reliance on his lords for revenue, the central authority may have grown overly dependent on its vassal states for economic support. On the other hand, by serving as the powerhouse of the empire's economy, individual states fostered their own ability to obtain wealth and power without the support and permission of the *Buurba*. Given such a fragile context, the Atlantic trade transformed Cayor into the region's leading power.

Cayor dominated the Atlantic Slave Trade due to both its proximity to the coast and the eagerness of its *Damel* (King) to

obtain Portuguese goods. Prior to 1445, coastlines were regarded as dead-ends that halted trade and territorial expansion; with the advent of the Atlantic trade, however, exposure to coastlines became a distinct advantage. Cayor exploited this benefit successfully by greeting Portuguese explorers hospitably. In fact, Cada Mosto states that prior to his arrival in 1455 "some Portuguese, who had dealt with Budomel [the *Damel*], represented him as a very just person, who paid for any goods he might receive."[43] The Venetian then describes his own encounter with the *Damel*:

> I stopped at [Budomel's] country, that I might endeavor to dispose of some Spanish horses I had on board, which are in great request among the Negroes; besides which, I had some cloth, Moorish wrought silks, and other commodities for sale…I immediately…informed this lord…of the goods I had on board for sale. Not long afterwards Budomel came himself to the beach, attended by about fifteen horsemen and a hundred and fifty foot, and sent a message desiring me to land…promising to render me every attention and service in his power…After some discourse, I delivered to him seven horses, with their furniture; and every other article for which he expressed an inclination, all of which had cost me 300 ducats…which was to be in slaves, and which he promised to deliver at his own residence… Before setting out however, Budomel made me a present of a beautiful negress, about twelve years of age, who, he said, was meant to serve me in the cabin.[44]

Cada Mosto's words confirm the *Damel*'s thirst for both luxury goods and horses and the high priority he placed on forging a trade relationship with the Portuguese. Moreover, the *Damel*'s welcoming attitude towards the explorer demonstrates his efforts to make a favorable impression; the King's decision to greet Cada Mosto on the beach himself is perhaps the most poignant illustration of his devotion to fostering good relations.

The *Damel*'s effort was reciprocated; the trade relationship flourished between Portugal and Cayor for the second half of the 15th century, causing Cayor to rise as the hub of the new maritime trade. Statistically, Wolof slaves constituted 85% of the people shipped to Valencia between 1479 and 1516.[45] Duarte Pacheco Pereira, a Portuguese trader writing in 1505, further estimated that 3,500 slaves were being exported annually on the River Senegal

in Cayor.[46] Given their intricate trading links, Cayor and Portugal maintained an intimate political alliance; Cayor even sent an ambassador to the Portuguese court at Lisbon in 1515.[47] Hence, by the 16th century, Cayor controlled the influx of foreign goods into the empire, regulated the Buurba's imports, and ultimately undermined the Emperor's economic authority. In addition, by capitalizing on iron and cavalry imports, the Cayor ruling class strengthened its military force to challenge the Buurba Jolof in numerous civil wars. Such a rapid development of Cayor rendered other vassal states skeptical of their need for a tributary system and a united empire.

Contemporaneously with Cayor's rise, the Jolof steadily lost control over its vassal states due to its exclusion from the Atlantic trade. Geographically, the Jolof land was disadvantaged, as it mainly consisted of the hinterland and lacked a clear connection to the Atlantic Ocean.[48] Thus, unlike the Saharan trade, the Atlantic trade did not yield much military or economic benefit for the central authority. Additionally, by the late 15th century, the Jolof ruling class grew hostile towards the Portuguese, who by this time had created alliances with forces rivaling those of the *Buurba*. These tensions escalated in 1488 when the Portuguese attempt to establish a puppet government backfired.[49] In this event, Portuguese officials provided asylum for Bumi Jeleen, a Jolof prince fleeing a civil war for emperorship, "treat[ing him] as a visiting king" and "dress[ing him] in the clothing of a Portuguese noblemen."[50] By doing so, the Portuguese monarch Joao II sought to restore the prince as a puppet King and ultimately to form an active trading relationship with the empire. However, although Joao II had sent Jeleen back with a "Portuguese fleet of twenty armed caravels," the prince was killed by the captain of the fleet who had charged him with treason.[51]

This incident played a significant role in impairing the diplomatic relationship between Portugal and the Jolof Empire. The victor of the civil war and now the incumbent Jolof monarch grew suspicious of Portugal's motive after it had protected and supported his emperorship rival. Furthermore, the murder of

Bumi Jeleen destroyed the chances of restoring a Pro-Portugal leader who would form close alliances with the Portuguese monarchy. As a result, in the early 16th century, when Portuguese ships sailing to India stopped at the Jolof land for supplies, the Jolof aristocracy refused and often captured and ransomed sailors, effectively destroying the two parties' relationship.[52] Consequently, the Portuguese increased their trade with the Cayor ruling class, who would receive the sailors with open arms. This trend fueled the Jolof's hatred towards Portugal, which in turn enabled Cayor to solidify its status as a leading trade power within the empire.

Ultimately, in the first half of the 16th century, the newly empowered Cayor collided with the declining Jolof. In addition to their weak presence in the Atlantic trade, the Jolof were also impeded from engaging in the Saharan trade due to the expansion of the Denyanke kingdom in 1510.[53] The Denyanke surrounded the northern part of the Jolof state and completely cut off the empire from the Sahara. To add insult to injury, the Denyanke ruler Koli Tengela led massive invasions into the Jolof Empire in an effort to extend his kingdom.[54] These raids further weakened the Jolof's military and made the empire a prime target for insubordination. Recognizing the central authority's inability to provide economic and military protection, the subordinate states stopped paying tribute and consequently the empire disintegrated.[55] The Jolof attempted to restore their control by waging a long series of wars against its vassal states, but eventually fell to the powerful Cayor: in the 1556 Battle of Danki, the *Buurba Jolof* was killed by the *Damel* of Cayor.[56] Cayor's victory in this battle signaled the irrevocable breakdown of the Jolof Empire, simultaneously establishing Cayor's and subsequently the other vassal states' independence.

The Double-Edged Effects of the Atlantic Slave Trade

Taking a step back, we now focus on the underlying effects of the Atlantic Slave Trade prior to the ultimate disintegration of the Jolof Empire. On the surface, Cayor benefitted immensely from its engagement in the Atlantic trade. After seizing political superiority from the power vacuum, Cayor replaced the Jolof as

the dominant power. Also during this period, slaves doubled in value "from one horse for twelve slaves to one horse for six slaves" due to Portugal's heightened demand.[57] This increased profitability allowed the Cayor aristocracy to obtain a large number of horses and luxury goods.[58] However, although the Senegambian aristocracy appeared to be flourishing, a deeper look into the region's composition reveals an undercurrent of harmful changes; the initial phases of the Atlantic Slave Trade had precipitated the downfall of the Cayor and Wolof aristocracy in the second half of the 17th century.

During and upon the fragmentation of the Jolof Empire, violent warlords fought successive civil wars to seize control in a power vacuum. The *Damel* of Cayor tried to impose power over the Bawol and Waalo states (other vassal states who gained their independence), but failed to form an empire of equal strength.[59] As a result, beginning in the second half of the 16th century, Northern Senegambia lost its political center and became a series of divided warrior states each led by its own militarized upper class. Throughout the next two centuries, these warrior states would immerse themselves in the Atlantic Slave Trade in an attempt to expand their territory and defend themselves against hostile neighbors.

The series of territorial wars also caused a large decrease in population, fundamentally altering the socio-demographic structure of the region. During the war between the Jolof and its vassal states, victors captured rival soldiers and exported them to the Europeans in exchange for military supplies. As a result, Senegambia experienced a sudden increase in slave exports and became one of the largest African markets in the Atlantic Slave Trade: between 1526 and 1550, Senegambian and Wolof slaves constituted 37.6% and 20.4% of the annual West African slave trade market respectively (a total of 12,500 slaves over 25 years).[60] In addition, since there existed illegal slave trade markets, the true number of slave exports must have been higher.[61] In fact, Wolof slaves—as opposed to slaves of other ethnicities—grew so prevalent in Latin America that they became the leading causes of slave rebellions, and their importation was subsequently banned.[62]

This mass influx of Wolof slaves in other areas of the world signified a domestic loss in agricultural and industrial labor, which forced the region to rely even more heavily on foreign trade for economic survival. These negative effects were exacerbated as new European traders arrived to establish slave trading ports along the Senegambian coast.

At a societal level, the Atlantic Slave Trade facilitated the spread of violence, which most heavily impacted the common man. Unlike their rulers, who reaped tremendous profit from their engagement in the trade, Wolof peasants were strictly excluded from the benefits and became victims of increasing domestic conflict. The Portuguese explorer Gomes Eanes de Zurara notes that as early as the 1450s, villages by the shore became "depopulated by those who went there in ships from [Portugal]."[63] Thus, people "[did] not stray far from their country…[because they feared] being seized by the blacks and sold as slaves."[64] Such observations reflect the insecurity along the coast that existed long before the territorial wars associated with the Atlantic trade. As demand for slaves increased, these conditions worsened and fear rose to dominate the peasants' daily lives. Entire villages fell prey to war and slave raids, and the people suffered the loss of family members, friends, and often a full generation of the labor force. Consequently, such a population drain disrupted kinship necessary to maintain local communities.

Even those who survived the slave raids suffered a distinct drop in the quality of life as they were exposed to aggressive and hostile conditions. The demoralized people had to focus on simply surviving, and remaining societies embarked on cold-blooded efforts to capture slaves and appropriate each other's lands. Overall, the shattered states of the Jolof Empire were filled with brutal competition and mutual distrust which clearly differed from the years prior to the Atlantic Slave Trade that had been characterized by collaboration on domestic agriculture and economic activities. Gone too was the chance of a close and family-like master-slave relationship, and in its place was only the concept of status: "superior" or "inferior."

The Portuguese and Sereer

Another important byproduct of the Atlantic Slave Trade was an increase in European presence and bargaining power in Senegambia. As depicted in the Jolof's fall and Cayor's subsequent emergence, the Wolof aristocracy became one of the first examples of "extraversion in African politics": the aristocrats' political power heavily depended on the economic benefits of trade with an external entity.[65,66] This dependence allowed European traders to wield influence over their Wolof trading partners by supporting the states they favored. For instance, in the first half of the 16th century, the Portuguese realized that the new *Damel* had grown unwelcoming and sought new trading partners south of the Cayor. Cape Verdean trader Andre Alvares d'Almada writes, "In the past, [our people] had their greatest trade with this land of [Cayor]… but a new king succeeded to the throne…[and] paid our [traders] badly…and this was why [we] left this trade."[67]

This shift led the Portuguese to Cayor's immediate southern neighbor: the Sereer. While the Sereer people—existing as a "constellation of chieftaincies"[68]—had initially refused to engage in a slave trade and slave culture, they soon required a strengthened military force after falling victim to Wolof slave raids.[69] The newfound Portuguese attention presented these coastal chiefdoms with the opportunity to import horses for defensive purposes.[70] With these new resources, the separate kin-based societies eventually founded the Sereer polity of Saluum and began to wage war against their former predators. The Sereer aggression, alongside Wolof civil wars, contributed to the breakdown and population drain of the Jolof Empire, increasing the number of captured and enslaved Wolof people.[71]

Sereer's case demonstrates the ever-shifting focus of European traders and their ability to control conditions of trade. Although some adamant Wolof rulers firmly responded to this harmful behavior, many weak leaders failed to punish manipulative European practices and instead increased their dependence for economic and military aid. This overdependence would allow European merchants to have significant influence over the

Wolof's domestic affairs for decades to come. Furthermore, this trend continued throughout the 17th century, when the Dutch, English, and French arrived and attempted to exert their dominance over Wolof rulers.

Increased European Involvement and the Trade's Further Intensification

By the dawn of the 17th century, the Dutch, English, and French had begun to challenge the Portuguese monopoly over the slave trade in Senegambia. Each European nation strove to seize control of the lucrative triangular trade that connected a series of markets in Europe to Africa, and eventually to the Americas. In this system, the European merchants would first trade weapons and luxury goods for slaves in Africa; the slaves would then be transported to the Americas to mass produce cash crops such as tobacco and cotton through cheap labor on plantations; the crops would finally be transported across the Atlantic so that Europe could reap the benefits. Hence, these other European nations began to establish stable trading relations with Wolof rulers, hoping to gain access to a large, mobile labor market both within and beyond Senegambia.

Joao Baptista Lavanha, a Portuguese trader in Senegambia in 1600, helps to characterize the heightened competition and tension among European powers: "On the [Senegal] river it has been very many years that the French, the British and the Dutch traded a great quantity of hides, ivory and wax, and their ships stayed there in great security."[72] By the 1600s, Portugal was no longer the sole trading partner of Wolof states. Now, other European nations (most notably the French) had established large-scale commerce and formed close trading relations with local aristocrats.[73] This case appears similar, if not identical, to the encounter between Portugal and Cayor in which the two states closely allied with one another to reap the benefits of trade.

The Europeans extended their influence by increasing the scope and influence of the Atlantic Slave Trade in Northern Senegambia. For instance, throughout the 17th century, European

nobles sponsored chartered companies such as the Dutch West India, the French West India, and the Royal African Company to establish ports along the Senegambian coasts[74]: the Dutch at Goree Island in 1621, the English at Fort Saint James in 1651, and the French at Saint Louis in 1659.[75] As a result of this expansion, the Wolof aristocracy sold an estimated 30,000 slaves solely at the ports of Goree Island and St. Louis from 1670 to 1750.[76] Since this figure neither takes into account the number of slaves exported through other slave ports nor through illegal slave routes, the total number of slaves exported from Northern Senegambia during this period was in fact larger. The opening of these new ports "completed the redirection of Senegambian trade towards the Atlantic seaboard."[77] Through this expansive slave trading business, the aristocracy enjoyed a highly secured supply of European metals (copper, tin, and iron), alcohol, and textiles.[78] Eventually, the total reliance on European goods for economic prosperity further separated the aristocracy from the common man.

The Toubenan Movement

As we saw in the aftermath of Senegambia's encounter with Portugal, engagement in the Atlantic Slave Trade was a double-edged sword. The growing levels of European trading increased problems of population drain, extraversion, civil war, and social antagonism to the point that the region was on the brink of collapse. Thus, while the Senegambian aristocracy believed they were flourishing due to their rapid expansion and wealth accumulation from the slave trade, they were in fact ironically authoring their own downfall.

The true extent of Senegambia's trouble first became clear during the *Toubenan*, or *Marabout*, Movement, an invasion launched by a group of Saharan Berber nomads. In 1673, the group gathered under the Moorish *Marabout* Nasir Al Din to proclaim a *jihad*, or holy war, against the Wolof population.[79] While this social uprising ultimately failed and the Wolof states survived as autonomous bodies, the movement's very existence provides

a clear indication that the Senegambian rulers' involvement in the Atlantic Slave Trade served to undermine their own position.

Although certainly a product of foreign aggression, the Berber invasion was rooted in the slave trade propagated by the Wolof ruling class. The Wolof rulers' mass exportation of slaves across the Atlantic disturbed the economic structure of the Berber societies on a fundamental level. Prior to the intensification of the Atlantic Slave Trade, Berbers had depended on the Saharan trade with Senegambia to gain access to slave labor and agricultural supplies such as cereal and grains.[80] However, with the establishment of the European slave ports, specifically Saint Louis in 1659, the Saharan trade drastically declined.

The shifting trading focus had two major impacts on Berber societies. First, the Berbers lost their trading rights with the Wolof states, which created an intense economic upheaval that deprived the society of imported luxury goods.[81] More significant, however, was the drastic decrease in Senegambia's labor force caused by the large-scale slave exports across the Atlantic.[82] From its inception, the Atlantic trade heavily drained the Wolof population on a scale much greater than slave trades associated with Berber societies had done before.[83] For instance, as Senegambian rulers continued to export slaves, they were forced to look outside the slave class for an adequate supply. This led to the capturing of local farmers and artisans, which damaged regular productions of agricultural and textile goods. Such a drastic demographic change impeded economic development in Berber societies who had traditionally relied upon the sedentary farmers of Northern Senegambia.[84] Resultantly, the Berbers blamed the Wolof aristocracy for betraying their original links in the intra-continental trade.

Adding to the Berbers' motives for a *jihad,* the Sengambian aristocracy's violent practice of capturing and selling its own peasants provided a pretext to exterminate unruly 'idolaters' in the South. Since the majority of Wolof peasants were Muslim, clerics in Berber societies viewed the practice of slave trading under a militant regime as immoral and contradictory to beliefs presented by the *Koran*. Consequently, Berbers strived to establish a Muslim

theocracy that would 'purify' the Wolof states and "show all the kings how to change their lives by making *sala* (Islamic prayer) better and more often…and finally that God did not want them to pillage their subjects, let alone kill them or take them captive."[85] In fact, the name of the movement, *Toubenan*, originated from a Wolof word (*tuub*) that meant "converting oneself to Islam."[86] This "revolutionary impetus" appealed to the Wolof peasants, who had long been marginalized by aristocratic abuse. Thus, the peasants grew to revere Al Din's force and considered him a means to counter their oppression.[87]

The process by which the revolutionary impetus evolved into the movement itself further confirms the problems inherent in an aggressive slave trading culture. Despite the *Toubenan* Movement's ultimate failure in 1677, Al Din and his followers first achieved a "devastatingly rapid victory" due to the decentralized nature of Wolof states and the support of indigenous Muslim peasants.[88] Before his defeat, Al Din got so far as to establish a Muslim theocracy by seating his *marabouts* in positions generally held by Wolof aristocrats.[89] This event highlights the danger of Wolof societies' deep polarization and foreshadows the frequent rise of theocratic states in the following century. As exhibited in the peasants' support of the Berber invasion, Wolof communities no longer retained a common societal identity.

Instead, the violent slave culture associated with the slave trade divided the Wolof population into two factions. The first consisted of those directly involved in the administration and facilitation of the slave trade: the militant King, aristocrats, and royal slaves called the *Tyeddo*. Together, these elites reaped all the benefits of the trade and caused the disintegration of Wolof societies. The other group was comprised of angered Wolof peasants and Muslim clerics, both of whom were excluded from and often sacrificed for the good of the aristocrats. Thus this class—which had for so long been considered inferior—rallied around an Islamic ideology to purify the region and expel the unethical slave trading practice. It was in this hostile environment that the Wolof aristocrats attempted to restore their power.

The methods used by the Wolof aristocrats during their reclamation of power led to the rise of European bargaining power. The *Marabouts* enjoyed dominance over the Northern Senegambian region until Al Din's death in 1674. Following the loss of its prominent leader, the *Marabouts* fractured, which provided an opportunity for the Wolof aristocracies to resurge. However, the Wolof leaders had been so devastated by Al Din's invasion that they required French military aid to reclaim their authority.[90] The French, whose prosperous trade at the Saint Louis port had been halted, provided this aid willingly. Bolstered by the assistance of an external power, the Wolof aristocracy finally forced the *Marabouts'* retreat and in 1677, defeated them entirely.[91] This event marked the end of complete Wolof autonomy and the beginning of extensive European dominance over Senegambia.

The Devastation

In addition to enlisting the French Crown, the Senegambian aristocrats also sought the aid of the *Tyeddo,* or royal slaves. As previously mentioned, these loyal servants were among the few reliable agents of the aristocracy to advance the lords' military and political missions. In the late 17th century, the leader of the Bawol state Lat Sukaabe Faal employed slaves as domestic policing forces over the hostile peasantry: when a Muslim rebellion opposing his violent ruling style broke out in the city of Njambur, the King dispatched the *Tyeddo* to crush his dissenters at the battle of Ngangara.[92] Through such victories, Faal restored traditional aristocratic dominance over Northern Senegambia and became a "symbol of triumph" for the warlords. He also advanced the Atlantic Slave Trade for his own benefit and merged the Bawol province with that of the Cayor.[93] Overall, Faal's reliance on the *Tyeddo* to reinforce hierarchal order represented a new form of violence that divided the region: a slave aristocracy against Muslim peasants.

Despite the apparent benefits of the *Tyeddo,* their use caused instability in Senegambia by giving rise to an independent and violent slave force. Although their nominal status was still "slave," the *Tyeddo* had a higher economic and political status than a free peasant because of their relationship with the ruling powers.[94] Due to their accumulation of wealth from fighting, administering, and trading as agents of the aristocrats, the *Tyeddo* were able to build their own independent military force. By the beginning of the 18th century, the number of *Tyeddo* represented one fourth of the Senegambian population. The European observers even referred to them as the "military elite," which was equivalent to calling them the nobility.[95] As these slave warriors congregated into larger forces, their greed for power and luxury subsequently increased. Soon after, they turned into "drunken brutes," who were infamous for the consumption of European alcohol and their incessant pillaging of the peasants.[96] Yet, even after the military action ended, aristocrats continued to rely upon their loyalty and designated certain titles to be "held only by the *Tyeddo.*"[97] Under this context, the loyal and docile servants transformed into a formidable political and military force that could determine the fate of their masters.[98]

The violence by the *Tyeddo,* combined with the intervention of the French, served to create a chaotic and toxic environment in Senegambia. Tensions between the peasantry and aristocracy worsened throughout the 1680s and 1690s as the many factions clashed in numerous military struggles that produced no ultimate victor.[99] These struggles further divided an already fractured region; by the start of the 18th century, dominant Muslim theocracies such as the *Bundu* and the *Futa Jallon* rose to challenge traditional Wolof states (Cayor, Bawol, and Waalo).[100] Throughout this process, both sides turned to slavery and slave trade as the answer to their problems; the Wolof States retained their long-held beliefs and continued to use slaves on the battlefield, while the Islamic societies reluctantly—and hypocritically—embraced slavery as a means for "defensive practices."[101] Yet, these practices left Senegambia with a complete lack of central authority throughout the 18th century and rendered the region prone to foreign invasion. Here, history repeated itself; this time, however, the incoming force was not a domestic vassal state or a group of Saharan nomads; rather, it was a global imperial power and former Wolof trading partner: the French Crown.

Conclusion: A Full Story of the Atlantic Slave Trade

Motivated by personal gain both on the European and Senegambian sides, the first slave traders engaged in a mutually beneficial agreement, which later matured into a complex and ominous trading web that ended up bolstering only one side: the West. The outcomes of this trade were unequal, but the original involvement and intention were not. Specifically, alongside European greed, Senegambian aristocrats—preoccupied with the influx of immediate power and wealth—had actually perpetuated a self-destructive slave system at the cost of Wolof societies' downfall.

The advent of the Atlantic trade gave rise to previously inferior political authorities such as Cayor, who extended their influence by controlling the influx of foreign goods. This political turnover involved the spread of a violent slave culture in which thousands of people were shipped out of the region, societies degenerated, and existing political authorities toppled. The peasants, greatly threatened by these negative effects, resisted with a series of violent social uprisings catalyzed by the Toubenan Movement and adopted Islam as a rationale for combatting pervasive slave culture. Meanwhile, the aristocrats' reliance on a slave trade to maintain their economic and political power inevitably invited European influence.

Now that we have told a fuller story by incorporating the African perspective, we see that Senegambia's downfall was the result of a combination of economic failures, civil unrest, and unstable political leadership. Still, it is necessary to note that all three of these causes were rooted in the enslavement of people. The economy failed because the aristocrats became overly reliant on European merchants in the slave trade for a monopoly of resources and political power. There was civil unrest because Wolof peasants were discontented with unwarranted exploitation and social inequality. Lastly, Cayor and subsequent Islamic states were only able to extend and abuse their influence because the Atlantic Slave Trade gave them that opportunity.

To conclude, the Wolof society's long exposure to slavery and slave culture facilitated its entrance into European markets in

the first place. It is true that the Atlantic Slave Trade specifically impacted Senegambia in a way that the institution of slavery alone could not. Nonetheless, it was the existence of slavery coupled with the aristocrats' corrupt mindset that created the root causes of Senegambia's devastation.

Afterward: A Balanced Narrative

Prior to the mid-20th century, history was written largely by the victors—the elite that won the wars, conquered the territory, and resultantly rose to prominence. The triumphant essentially wrote the history of the defeated and refused to acknowledge culpability for their oppression. A prominent example of this trend was the elimination of African perspectives from the history of the Atlantic Slave Trade. In an effort to counteract this bias, revisionist historians have embraced a "victim's eye panorama" over the past half century, retelling the story of our world from the perspective of the oppressed, the enslaved, and the discriminated.[102] But by attempting to counter the victor-written history with a victim-written history, academics have actually perpetuated all that they had hoped to counteract: a one-sided view that leaves readers vulnerable to the misunderstandings and misattributions of blame. They simply shifted the focus to a different "single authoritative source of history."[103]

This essay sought to provide a more balanced narrative of the Atlantic Slave Trade that did not legitimize one side's account over that of the other. By investigating the motives and actions of all parties involved, we learn how elites from both the imperial West and hierarchical Africa collaborated to cause the ultimate fall of Northern Senegambia. The reasoning behind this dual involvement—a recognition and acceptance of slavery in both regions—demonstrates that the exploitation of the majority by an elite minority was not limited to Westerners or Africans. As historian Orlando Patterson writes:

> There is nothing peculiar about the institution of slavery. It has existed from before the dawn of human history right down to the twentieth century, in the most primitive of human societies and in

> the most civilized. There is no region on earth that has not at some time harbored the institution. Probably there is no group of people whose ancestors were not at one time slaves or slaveholders.[104]

After all, slave culture is a global phenomenon, slavery is a human institution, and those who do not remember the past accurately are condemned to repeat it.[105]



Endnotes

[1] Boubacar Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, (Cambridge, England: Cambridge University Press, 1998), 10.

[2] Martin A. Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer of Senegambia," in *Slavery in Africa: Historical and Anthropological Perspectives*, ed. Suzanne Miers and Igor Kopytoff (Madison, WI: University of Wisconsin Press, 1977), 335-336; Senegambia was considered a secondary supplier of slaves during the peak of the Atlantic Slave Trade (17th-18th century). From the 1720s onward, the region experienced a steady decline in slave exports due to the more populated regions in the Southern Coasts becoming the preferred trading partners of the Europeans.

[3] Emory University, "Estimates Database.," Voyages: The Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade Database, accessed July 29, 2016, http://www.slavevoyages.org/assessment/estimates.

[4] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade,* 39.

[5] Johannes Postma, *The Atlantic Slave Trade,* (Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, 2003), 5.

[6] Ibid., 5.

[7] Toby Green, *The Rise of the Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade in Western Africa, 1300-1589*, (New York, NY: Cambridge University Press, 2012), 81.

[8] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 6.

[9] Ibid., 6

[10] Ibid., 15.

[11] Ibid., 29.

[12] Alvise Da Cada Mosto, "Original Journals of the Voyages of Cada Mosto, and Pedro de Cintra, to the Coast of Africa, from 1455," in *A General History and Collection of Voyages and Travels Arranged in Systematic Order: Forming a Complete History of the Origin and Progress of Navigation, Discovery, and Commerce, by Sea and Land, from the Earliest Ages to the Present Time*, ed. Robert Kerr (Edinburgh, Scotland: Library of Alexandria, 1824), 2: Section IV.

[13] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 7.

[14] When discussing the actors involved in the slave trade, this essay will use terms including the Jolof Empire, the Jolof, the Wolof aristocracy, and Senegambia. While the Jolof Empire will refer to the power of the united region before 1555, the Jolof will describe the central authority in the empire, which received tributes from other vassal states. On the other hand,

Wolof designates the ethnicities of the indigenous people within Northern Senegambia, and thus 'Wolof aristocracy' refers to the political class that controlled these people.

[15] Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer," in *Slavery in Africa*, 337-338.

[16] Cada Mosto, "Original Journals," in *A General*, 2: Section V.

[17] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 29.

[18] Basil Davidson, *West Africa before the Colonial Era: A History to 1850*, (London, England: Longman, 1998), 93.

[19] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 31.

[20] Cada Mosto, "Original Journals," in *A General*, 2: Section V.

[21] Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer," in *Slavery in Africa*, 343-344.

[22] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 31-32.

[23] Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer," in *Slavery in Africa*, 344.

[24] Ibid., 342.

[25] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 32.

[26] Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer," in *Slavery in Africa*, 342.

[27] Duarte Pacheco Pereira, "The Wealth of Africa (1508)," trans. George H.T. Kimble, in *Africa and the West: A Documentary History*, ed. William H. Worger, Nancy L. Clark, and Edward A. Alpers, 2nd ed. (New York, NY: Oxford University Press, 2010), 1:21.

[28] Cada Mosto, "Original Journals," in *A General*, 2: Section IV.

[29] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 10.

[30] Ibid., 32.

[31] Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer," in *Slavery in Africa*, 341.

[32] Ibid., 340.

[33] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 36-37; The Portuguese wished to divert the Saharan Gold Trade from Sudan to the Atlantic and had made "strenuous efforts" to travel up the Senegal valley and Gambia River. Through these attempts, the Portuguese hoped to seize direct contact with trading centers that supplied Sudanese gold.

[34] Green, *The Rise of the Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade in Western Africa, 1300-1589*, 75.

[35] Ibid., 74.

[36] Postma, *The Atlantic Slave Trade*, 5.

[37] Ibid., 5.

[38] Cada Mosto, "Original Journals," in *A General*, 2: Section IV.

[39] Green, *The Rise of the Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade in Western Africa, 1300-1589*, 75.

[40] Davidson, *West Africa before the Colonial Era: A History to 1850*, 93.

[41] Ibid., 95.

[42] Cada Mosto, "Original Journals," in *A General*, 2: Section IV.

[43] Ibid., Section V.

[44] Ibid., Section V.

[45] Green, *The Rise of the Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade in Western Africa, 1300-1589*, 81.

[46] Ibid., 90.

[47] Ibid., 92.

[48] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 44.

[49] Green, *The Rise of the Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade in Western Africa, 1300-1589*, 85.

[50] Ibid., 85.

[51] Ibid., 85.

[52] Ibid., 92.

[53] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 44.

[54] Ibid., 40.

[55] Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer," in *Slavery in Africa*, 340.

[56] Boubacar Barry, *The Kingdom of Waalo: Senegal before the Conquest*, (New York, New York: Diasporic Africa Press, 2012), 17.

[57] Green, *The Rise of the Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade in Western Africa, 1300-1589*, 80.

[58] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 40.

[59] Ibid., 44.

[60] Philip D. Curtin, *The Atlantic Slave Trade: A Census*, (Madison, Wisconsin: University of Wisconsin Press, 1969), 101.

[61] Green, *The Rise of the Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade in Western Africa, 1300-1589*, 191.

[62] Ibid., 91.

[63] Ibid., 78.

[64] Ibid., 78.

[65] Ibid., 80.

[66] Ibid., 80.
[67] Ibid., 203-204.
[68] Ibid., 203-204.
[69] Ibid., 91.
[70] Ibid.
[71] Ibid., 206.
[72] Barry, *The Kingdom of Waalo: Senegal before the Conquest*, 19.
[73] Lavanha further notes that the Wolof people even welcomed parts of European culture and language: "they had very friendly relations with the Blacks, who, because of the continuous trades, went to France and spoke French and… intermarried with the French.".
[74] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade,* 48.
[75] Ibid., 47.
[76] Emory University, "Estimates Database.," Voyages: The Trans-Atlantic Slave Trade Database.
[77] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade,* 47.
[78] Ibid., 49.
[79] Ibid., 50.
[80] Ibid.
[81] Ibid.
[82] Ibid., 51.
[83] Ibid.
[84] Barry, *The Kingdom of Waalo: Senegal before the Conquest,* 74.
[85] Ibid., 70.
[86] Ibid.
[87] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade,* 51.
[88] Ibid., 52.
[89] Barry, *The Kingdom of Waalo: Senegal before the Conquest,* 72.
[90] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade,* 52.
[91] Ibid., 52-53.
[92] Ibid., 83.
[93] Ibid., 82.
[94] Martin A. Klein, "Social and Economic Factors in the Muslim Revolution in Senegambia," *The Journal of African History* 13, no. 3 (1972): 420, accessed October 31, 2015, http://www.jstor.org/stable/180588.
[95] Ibid., 422.
[96] James F. Searing, "Aristocrats, Slaves, and Peasants: Power and Dependency in the Wolof States, 1700-1850," *The International Journal of African Historical Studies* 212, no. 3 (1988): 482, accessed October 29, 2015, doi:10.2307/219452.

[97] Klein, "Servitude among the Wolof and Sereer," in *Slavery in Africa*, 342.
[98] Searing, "Aristocrats, Slaves, and Peasants," 482.
[99] Ibid., 499.
[100] Barry, *Senegambia and the Atlantic Slave Trade*, 94.
[101] Ibid., 99-100; the Islamic States, in particular, enslaved and oppressed non-Muslims by using Islam as a "religious mask" and "excuse for slave raiding."
[102] David Greenberg, "Agit-Prof," *New Republic*, March 19, 2013, accessed September 10, 2016, https://newrepublic.com/article/112574/howard-zinns-influential-mutilations-american-history.
[103] David Plotnikoff, "Zinn's Influential History Textbook Has Problems, Says Stanford Education Expert," Stanford News, last modified December 20, 2012, accessed September 15, 2016, http://news.stanford.edu/news/2012/december/wineburg-historiography-zinn-122012.html.
[104] Postma, *The Atlantic Slave Trade,* 1.
[105] George Santayana, *Introduction and Reason in Common Sense*, vol. 1,*The Life of Reason: or the Phases of Human Progress* (New York, NY: Charles Scribner's Son, 1905), 284.

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